Replicating xRFM: Accurate, Scalable, and Interpretable Feature Learning Models for Tabular Data +bonus

COMP9417 Group Project

Xueyao Jiang z5581908 Chang Yang z5569348 Binyue Peng z5705242
Jiayu Zhang z5649264 Zirun Zhang z5617187

April 28, 2026

Contents

1 Introduction **1**

2 Methodology **1**
2.1 xRFM: Algorithm and Theoretical Background . . . 1
2.2 Experimental Design . . . 2
2.2.1 Datasets . . . 2
2.2.2 Preprocessing and Splitting . . . 2
2.2.3 Evaluation Metrics . . . 2
2.2.4 xRFM Configuration . . . 2
2.2.5 XGBoost and LightGBM Configuration . . . 3
2.2.6 MLP Configuration . . . 3

3 Results **3**
3.1 Predictive Performance . . . 3
3.2 Scalability Analysis . . . 4
3.3 Interpretability Comparison . . . 5

4 Discussion **6**
4.1 xRFM: When Feature Learning Helps and When It Does Not . . . 6
4.2 XGBoost and LightGBM: Performance and Efficiency . . . 7
4.3 MLP: Performance and Scalability Limitations . . . 7

5 Conclusion **7**

Appendix **8**

A Supplementary Experiments and Figures **8**
A.1 AGOP-Based Splitting Criterion: Scratch Implementation . . . 8
A.2 Additional AGOP Feature Importance Visualisation . . . 9
A.3 Extended Scalability Analysis . . . 9
A.4 Training-Time and Accuracy Trade-off . . . 10

References **12**

1 Introduction

Tabular data remains one of the most common data modalities in applied machine learning, appearing in domains such as materials science, healthcare, e-commerce, and human-resource analytics. Despite the rapid progress of deep learning on images and language, GBDTs such as XGBoost and LightGBM remain difficult to outperform on many tabular tasks [Grinsztajn et al., 2022, Holzmüller et al., 2024].

This project replicates and evaluates xRFM, a recent feature learning approach for tabular data based on the average gradient outer product (AGOP) [Beaglehole et al., 2025, Radhakrishnan et al., 2024]. Instead of relying only on fixed input features, xRFM uses gradient-based information from a learned prediction function to estimate directions in the input space that are most relevant to the target. This produces both a predictive model and an interpretable feature-relevance signal. The central question of our replication is therefore whether AGOP-driven feature learning can offer a competitive alternative to strong tabular baselines, especially when compared with XGBoost, LightGBM, and a multilayer perceptron (MLP).

We evaluate all models under a unified pipeline across five public tabular datasets covering regression and binary classification, large and small sample sizes, and mixed feature types (Diamonds, Superconductivity, Online Shoppers, Stroke, HR Attrition). Our main finding is that tree-based GBDTs lead overall, while xRFM shows selective strength on small-sample and fully numerical tasks. Section 2 describes methodology, Section 3 reports results, and Sections 4–5 discuss findings and conclusions.

2 Methodology

2.1 xRFM: Algorithm and Theoretical Background

xRFM is a tabular feature-learning model based on the Average Gradient Outer Product (AGOP) [Beaglehole et al., 2025, Radhakrishnan et al., 2024]. For a trained prediction function $f : \mathbb{R}^d \to \mathbb{R}$, the AGOP is defined as

$$G_f = \mathbb{E}_x\left[\nabla f(x) \nabla f(x)^\top\right] \in \mathbb{R}^{d \times d}. \tag{1}$$

The diagonal entry $[G_f]_{ii} = \mathbb{E}_x[(\partial f/\partial x_i)^2]$ is the expected squared partial derivative with respect to feature i: a large value indicates rapid change in the model output along coordinate i (important feature); a small value indicates near-insensitivity. The full G_f supports two interpretability strategies: its *diagonal* gives coordinate-wise importance scores for each feature, while its *top eigenvectors* identify multivariate directions in input space along which the model varies most, potentially capturing signal invisible to any single coordinate. We use diagonal AGOP in our experiments as it is cheaper to store and sufficient for feature-level rankings.

Compared with alternative methods, AGOP is supervised and model-specific: it reflects the gradient geometry of the fitted function, unlike PCA which only uses input covariance [Pearson, 1901]. Mutual information measures marginal feature–target dependence but not the model's multivariate sensitivity [Kraskov et al., 2004]. Permutation importance is model-agnostic but measures post-hoc performance degradation rather than learned geometry [Fisher et al., 2019]. AGOP is extracted as a by-product of training and directly summarises which directions the learned model relies on.

Training pipeline. xRFM builds a binary tree over the training data. At each node, a base model f is fitted to the local data partition and its AGOP G_f is computed. The leading eigenvector v_1 of G_f defines the split direction; the threshold t^* minimises weighted target

variance along the projection $v_1^\top x$. Each leaf fits a local random Fourier feature kernel machine with the feature metric reweighted by G_f. For inference on a new point x^*, the tree is traversed via $v_k^\top x^* \leq t_k$ at each internal node, and the leaf model produces the final prediction. The dominant training cost is AGOP computation: $O(nd)$ per node for a linear approximation, giving total complexity $O(nd \cdot 2^D)$ for tree depth D [Beaglehole et al., 2025]. This addresses the fundamental limitation of standard kernel machines on tabular data — that a global Euclidean metric treats all features equally — by adaptively reweighting feature space at each tree node.

2.2 Experimental Design

2.2.1 Datasets

Five public tabular datasets (Table 1) are used, spanning regression and binary classification, small and large sample sizes, and mixed feature types [Hamidieh, 2018, Sakar et al., 2019, fedesoriano, 2021].

Table 1: Dataset statistics. n_{train}, n_{val}, and n_{test} denote the sizes of the training, validation, and test splits respectively; d is the number of features after preprocessing.

Dataset	Task	Target	n_{train}	n_{val}	n_{test}	d
Diamonds	Regression	price	32,365	10,789	10,789	26
Superconductivity	Regression	critical_temp	12,757	4,253	4,253	81
Online Shoppers	Classification	Revenue	7,398	2,466	2,466	27
Stroke	Classification	stroke	3,066	1,022	1,022	21
HR Attrition	Classification	Attrition	882	294	294	51

2.2.2 Preprocessing and Splitting

All experiments use seed 42 and a 60/20/20 split. Numerical features are z-score normalised and categorical features are one-hot encoded; missing values are median/constant imputed. The same encoded matrix is used across all four models.

2.2.3 Evaluation Metrics

Regression tasks are evaluated with RMSE; binary classification tasks with accuracy and AUC-ROC. Training and inference time are also recorded.

2.2.4 xRFM Configuration

The xRFM experiments use the Python `xrfm` package through the shared project training pipeline. The model is initialised as `xRFM(use_diag=True, device=DEVICE)`, where `DEVICE` is CUDA if available and CPU otherwise. On GPU, the training script sets the number of fit iterations to 3 and `M_batch_size=128` to control memory cost. Feature importance is extracted by reading the learned AGOP matrix or diagonal values from the trained xRFM model and ranking features by their AGOP-derived scores.

Table 2: xRFM configuration used in the experiments.

Component	Setting
Model	`xRFM`
AGOP mode	Diagonal AGOP, `use_diag=True`
Device	CUDA if available; otherwise CPU
Random seed	42
GPU fit iterations	3
GPU AGOP batch size	128
Data split	60/20/20 train/validation/test
Regression metric	RMSE
Classification metrics	Accuracy and AUC-ROC
Interpretability output	Top features ranked by AGOP diagonal score

2.2.5 XGBoost and LightGBM Configuration

XGBoost and LightGBM are trained through the scikit-learn API using strong default settings from recent tabular benchmarking work [Chen and Guestrin, 2016, Ke et al., 2017, Holzmüller et al., 2024]. Both use 1,000 maximum boosting rounds, learning rate $\eta = 0.05$, row and column subsampling of 0.8, and early stopping with patience 20 on the validation set. XGBoost uses maximum tree depth 6, while LightGBM uses `num_leaves=31`.

2.2.6 MLP Configuration

The MLP baseline uses a two-hidden-layer network with hidden sizes $(128, 64)$ and ReLU activation. It is trained with Adam, learning rate 0.001, batch size 256, maximum 500 iterations, and early stopping with patience 20. Input features are standardised before training. For classification tasks, predicted probabilities are used for AUC-ROC calculation.

3 Results

This section compares xRFM with XGBoost, LightGBM, and MLP in terms of predictive performance, computational efficiency, scalability, and interpretability. All models are evaluated using the same preprocessing pipeline, train-validation-test split, and evaluation metrics described in Section 2.

3.1 Predictive Performance

Table 3 reports the final held-out test performance across all five datasets. RMSE is used for regression tasks, while accuracy and AUC-ROC are used for binary classification tasks. Bold values indicate the best result for each metric.

Regression tasks. LightGBM achieves the lowest RMSE on both regression datasets. xRFM is competitive on Superconductivity, where its RMSE of 9.454 is close to LightGBM's 9.209 and XGBoost's 9.302. However, xRFM performs much worse on Diamonds, with RMSE 1496.72 compared with 535.99 for LightGBM and 544.68 for XGBoost. This suggests that AGOP-based feature learning does not automatically outperform tree ensembles on large mixed-type tabular regression.

Classification tasks. For Online Shoppers and Stroke, XGBoost and LightGBM obtain the strongest AUC-ROC scores. xRFM remains reasonably competitive on Online Shoppers, but

Table 3: Test-set performance of all models. **Bold** indicates the best result per dataset and metric. RMSE is lower-better; Accuracy and AUC are higher-better.

Dataset	Metric	Model			
		xRFM	XGBoost	LightGBM	MLP
Diamonds	RMSE ↓	1496.72	544.68	**535.99**	734.69
Superconductivity	RMSE ↓	9.454	9.302	**9.209**	11.066
Online Shoppers	Accuracy ↑	0.8897	0.9031	**0.9039**	0.8946
	AUC ↑	0.9018	**0.9306**	0.9306	0.9040
Stroke	Accuracy ↑	0.9413	0.9491	0.9501	**0.9511**
	AUC ↑	0.7605	**0.8388**	0.8231	0.2690
HR Attrition	Accuracy ↑	**0.8673**	0.8571	0.8469	0.8639
	AUC ↑	0.7631	0.7552	**0.7886**	0.7512

its AUC is below the boosted-tree models. xRFM's strongest result is on HR Attrition, where it achieves the highest accuracy of 0.8673, suggesting a modest advantage in small-sample classification. MLP obtains high accuracy on Stroke but very low AUC, showing that accuracy alone can be misleading under severe class imbalance.

Table 4 reports training time and per-sample inference time for all models. The timing results show that xRFM can be efficient on smaller datasets, but becomes very expensive on Diamonds. In contrast, LightGBM and XGBoost remain consistently fast.

Table 4: Training time (s) and inference time per sample (μs) for all models. Each cell shows Train / Infer.

Dataset	xRFM	XGBoost	LightGBM	MLP
Diamonds	246.5 s / 69.8 μs	1.4 s / 1.9 μs	0.8 s / 1.9 μs	26.8 s / 0.9 μs
Superconductivity	1.6 s / 1.0 μs	3.4 s / 2.1 μs	1.9 s / 7.6 μs	34.3 s / 0.8 μs
Online Shoppers	0.7 s / 0.8 μs	0.2 s / 1.4 μs	0.3 s / 1.6 μs	2.1 s / 0.8 μs
Stroke	0.3 s / 1.1 μs	0.1 s / 1.1 μs	0.1 s / 2.0 μs	0.4 s / 1.0 μs
HR Attrition	0.1 s / 3.2 μs	0.1 s / 3.0 μs	0.1 s / 7.5 μs	0.4 s / 2.2 μs

3.2 Scalability Analysis

To evaluate scalability, we run subsampling experiments on Diamonds and Superconductivity. Table 5 reports RMSE and training time at different training sizes. Figure 1 visualises the Diamonds scalability curves.

Table 5: Scalability experiment: test RMSE and training time (seconds) as a function of training set size. Dash (–) indicates configurations not run.

Dataset	n_{train}	xRFM		XGBoost		LightGBM		MLP	
		RMSE	Time (s)	RMSE	Time (s)	RMSE	Time (s)	RMSE	Time (s)
Diamonds	1,000	1657.0	0.77	846.7	0.80	1003.4	0.13	1081.0	2.27
	5,000	1655.9	11.03	628.9	0.39	622.7	0.11	901.1	10.12
	10,000	1577.6	39.31	587.8	0.49	592.3	0.15	888.9	10.33
	30,000	1487.5	226.44	542.7	0.59	535.3	0.29	743.5	22.23
Supercond.	1,000	14.07	0.08	13.76	0.39	13.91	0.15	15.39	2.52
	5,000	11.30	0.47	10.81	1.00	10.71	0.46	13.05	8.58
	10,000	9.81	1.07	9.51	1.73	9.50	1.10	11.22	28.35
	12,757	9.46	1.56	9.28	1.64	9.21	1.04	–	–

On Diamonds, xRFM shows a clear scalability limitation. Its training time increases from 0.77s to 226.44s as n_{train} grows from 1,000 to 30,000, while RMSE only improves from 1657.0 to 1487.5. In contrast, LightGBM reaches 535.3 RMSE at 30,000 training samples while training in less than one second. On Superconductivity, xRFM scales more favourably: its RMSE improves from 14.07 to 9.46 and remains close to XGBoost and LightGBM at full size. This contrast suggests that xRFM is better suited to fully numerical, high-dimensional regression than to large mixed-type datasets with strong threshold and categorical effects.

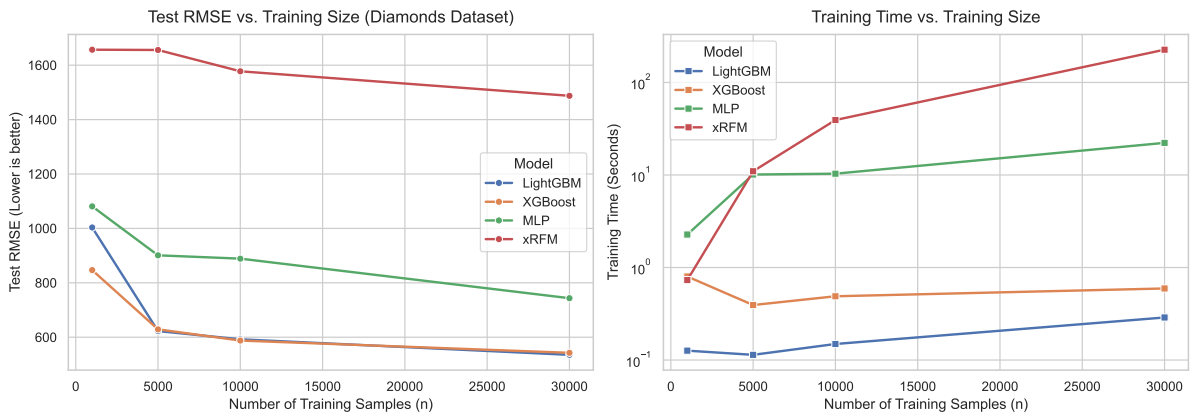

Figure 1: Scalability analysis on the Diamonds dataset, comparing test RMSE (left) and training time (right) across varying training set sizes.

3.3 Interpretability Comparison

Table 6 lists the top-five AGOP-ranked features extracted from each trained xRFM model. These results show that the AGOP diagonal often highlights meaningful variables: physical size for Diamonds, behavioural value for Online Shoppers, health risk factors for Stroke, and work-intensity indicators for HR Attrition.

Table 6: xRFM AGOP-diagonal feature importance extracted from the trained models.

Dataset	Top AGOP-ranked features, from 1st to 5th
Diamonds	y, x, carat, z, depth
Superconductivity	number_of_elements, mean_atomic_mass, wtd_mean_atomic_mass, gmean_atomic_mass, wtd_gmean_atomic_mass
Online Shoppers	PageValues, ExitRates, ProductRelated, ProductRelated_Duration, BounceRates
Stroke	avg_glucose_level, age, bmi, work_type_Self-employed, smoking_status_smokes
HR Attrition	OverTime_No, OverTime_Yes, BusinessTravel_Travel_Frequently, TotalWorkingYears, BusinessTravel_Non-Travel

To answer whether AGOP agrees with other feature-importance methods, we perform a detailed comparison on the Diamonds dataset. Table 7 compares AGOP diagonal importance against PCA loadings, mutual information, and permutation importance on the same data.

Table 7: Feature-importance comparison on the Diamonds dataset.

Method	Top ranked features
AGOP diagonal	y, x, carat, z, depth
PCA loadings	x, y, z, carat, table
Mutual information	carat, x, y, z, clarity_SI1
Permutation importance	carat, y, x, z, color_I

The empirical comparison partly supports the theoretical argument made in Section 2.1. AGOP is supervised and model-specific, so it should identify features that the learned xRFM function is sensitive to. On Diamonds, AGOP ranks y, x, carat, and z among the most important features, which agrees with mutual information and permutation importance that physical size and carat weight are central predictors of diamond price. PCA also ranks x, y, z, and carat highly, but this is expected because these variables dominate input variance rather than necessarily target relevance.

The main divergence is that permutation importance assigns additional importance to categorical quality features such as color_I, while AGOP focuses more heavily on continuous size-related coordinates. This difference is informative: AGOP reflects the sensitivity structure of the fitted xRFM model, whereas permutation importance directly measures test-performance degradation after feature corruption. A surprising finding is that AGOP produces intuitively meaningful feature rankings even though xRFM performs poorly on Diamonds compared with XGBoost and LightGBM. This suggests that interpretability and predictive accuracy are not equivalent. AGOP can identify sensible prediction-relevant directions, but the xRFM prediction pipeline may still be less effective than boosted trees at modelling sharp axis-aligned thresholds and categorical interactions in this dataset.

4 Discussion

4.1 xRFM: When Feature Learning Helps and When It Does Not

xRFM's strongest result is HR Attrition ($n = 882$), where its structured feature-learning prior may help in low-data settings. However, on Diamonds it obtains RMSE 1496.72 versus 535.99 for LightGBM — nearly three times worse. Diamonds contains strong axis-aligned categorical effects

(cut, colour, clarity) that boosted trees capture efficiently through split-based interactions [Chen and Guestrin, 2016, Ke et al., 2017], whereas AGOP gradient reweighting is less effective here. The scalability experiment confirms that adding more Diamonds data does not close this gap. In contrast, on the fully numerical Superconductivity dataset xRFM approaches the tree baselines, suggesting it is better suited to continuous high-dimensional inputs. Future work should target categorical handling, more efficient AGOP approximation, and dataset-specific tuning.

4.2 XGBoost and LightGBM: Performance and Efficiency

XGBoost and LightGBM deliver competitive or superior performance across all five datasets while remaining the fastest models to train. On Diamonds, both GBDTs outperform xRFM by a large margin in RMSE (544.68 and 535.99 versus 1496.72), consistent with the strong axis-aligned inductive bias of tree-based splits [Grinsztajn et al., 2022]. On HR Attrition ($n = 882$, $d = 51$), xRFM marginally surpasses XGBoost in accuracy (0.8673 versus 0.8571), suggesting that kernel-style feature learning offers a modest advantage only in a restricted small-data regime. LightGBM is the fastest model at every large Diamonds scale, with near-linear growth in training time (Table 5).

4.3 MLP: Performance and Scalability Limitations

MLP underperforms both GBDTs on regression (RMSE 743.5 vs. 535.3 on Diamonds at $n =$ 30,000) and shows unstable classification results, most notably AUC 0.269 on Stroke. This reflects sensitivity to class imbalance and the limited alignment between global gradient-based optimisation and the piecewise structure of tabular features [Holzmüller et al., 2024].

5 Conclusion

We replicated xRFM and compared it with XGBoost, LightGBM, and MLP across five tabular datasets under a unified experimental pipeline. Tree-based GBDTs remain the strongest general-purpose baselines: LightGBM and XGBoost lead on accuracy and training speed across nearly all settings. xRFM shows selective promise — competitive on Superconductivity and best accuracy on HR Attrition — but underperforms substantially on Diamonds and scales poorly there, indicating that AGOP feature learning is not universally superior to tree splitting on large mixed-type data. AGOP-diagonal rankings are broadly interpretable and align with domain knowledge, though meaningful rankings do not guarantee predictive strength. Future work should address categorical variable handling, AGOP approximation efficiency, and hyperparameter tuning for diverse tabular settings.

A Supplementary Experiments and Figures

This appendix provides supplementary material for the main empirical analysis. It includes an additional AGOP-based splitting verification and extended figures for feature importance, scalability, and performance-efficiency trade-offs. These materials support the main findings in Sections 3 and 4 but are not required for understanding the core report.

A.1 AGOP-Based Splitting Criterion: Scratch Implementation

The xRFM algorithm selects a split direction at each internal node using the Average Gradient Outer Product (AGOP). In the original xRFM formulation, the leading eigenvector of the AGOP provides a supervised direction in input space that is relevant to prediction [Beaglehole et al., 2025]. To better understand this mechanism, we implemented a simplified AGOP-based splitting criterion from scratch using ridge regression.

For a linear prediction model

$$f(x) = w^\top x + b,$$

the gradient is constant:

$$\nabla f(x) = w.$$

Therefore, the AGOP reduces to

$$G_f = \mathbb{E}_x \left[\nabla f(x) \nabla f(x)^\top \right] = w w^\top.$$

The diagonal entries are

$$[G_f]_{ii} = w_i^2,$$

which provide coordinate-wise feature importance scores. The leading eigenvector of G_f is proportional to w, so the split direction is

$$v_1 = \frac{w}{\|w\|}.$$

In our scratch implementation, the threshold t^* is selected by scanning candidate quantiles of the projection $v_1^\top X$ and choosing the threshold that minimises the weighted target variance after splitting. This simplified implementation is not intended to replace the official xRFM library; rather, it verifies the intuition that AGOP-based directions can recover prediction-relevant coordinates.

Synthetic verification. We construct a synthetic dataset with $n = 300$ and $d = 10$, where the target is generated as

$$y = 3x_0 - 2x_1 + \varepsilon.$$

Thus, the true relevant features are x_0 and x_1, while x_2 to x_9 are noise variables. Table 8 compares the scratch AGOP diagonal with a numerical AGOP estimate obtained from the fitted xRFM predictor.

Table 8: AGOP diagonal on the synthetic dataset. Noise features x_2–x_9 receive low scores under both methods.

Feature	Scratch w_i^2	xRFM numerical AGOP
x_0 (coefficient +3)	9.23	13.03
x_1 (coefficient −2)	3.93	5.28
x_2–x_9 (noise)	≤ 0.03	≤ 0.30
Top-2 identified	$\{x_0, x_1\}$	$\{x_0, x_1\}$
Cosine similarity		**0.9985**

Both methods correctly identify x_0 and x_1 as the top two features. The high cosine similarity indicates that the scratch implementation recovers nearly the same feature direction as the numerical AGOP estimate. This supports the interpretation of the AGOP diagonal as a coordinate-wise feature relevance measure.

A.2 Additional AGOP Feature Importance Visualisation

Figure 2 visualises the top-five AGOP diagonal features for Diamonds and Superconductivity. For Diamonds, AGOP emphasises physical size and weight-related variables such as `y`, `x`, `carat`, `z`, and `depth`. For Superconductivity, the top AGOP features are related to the number of elements and atomic-mass statistics. These rankings are consistent with the interpretation that AGOP highlights coordinates to which the learned xRFM prediction function is most sensitive.

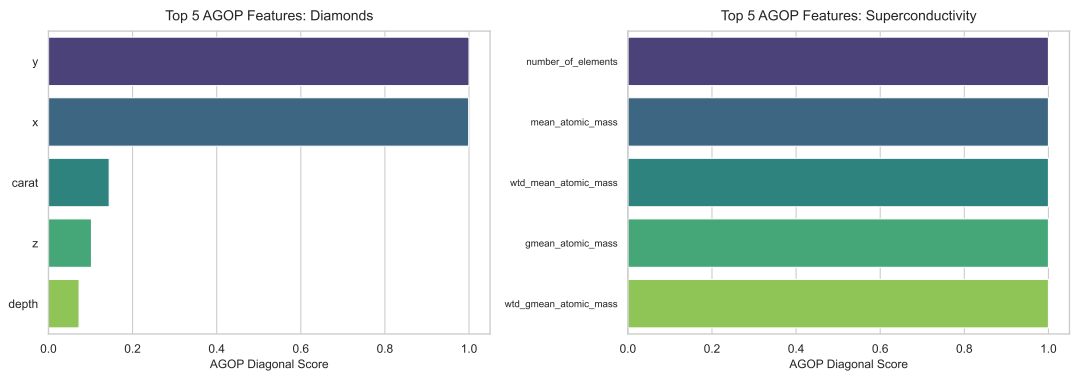

Figure 2: Top-five AGOP diagonal feature importance scores for Diamonds and Superconductivity.

A.3 Extended Scalability Analysis

Figure 3 extends the scalability analysis by showing both Diamonds and Superconductivity. For Diamonds, xRFM exhibits a large increase in training time as the training size grows, while its RMSE improves only gradually. In contrast, XGBoost and LightGBM achieve much lower RMSE with substantially shorter training time. For Superconductivity, xRFM behaves more competitively: its RMSE decreases steadily with more training data and remains close to the tree-based models at full training size.

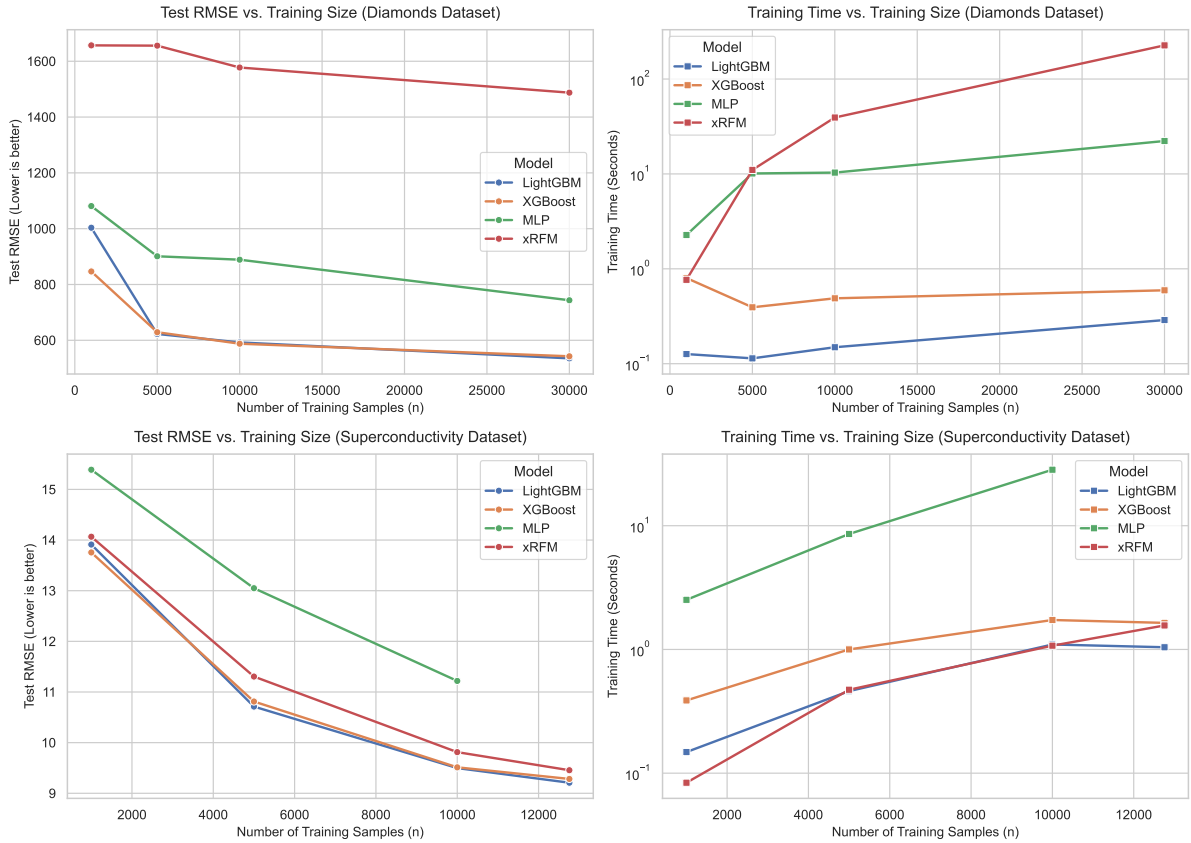

Figure 3: Extended scalability analysis for Diamonds and Superconductivity. The plots compare test RMSE and training time as functions of training-set size.

A.4 Training-Time and Accuracy Trade-off

Figure 4 shows the trade-off between training time and predictive error. A better model should ideally appear closer to the lower-left region, indicating both low RMSE and low training time. On Diamonds, LightGBM and XGBoost dominate the trade-off, while xRFM is both slower and less accurate. On Superconductivity, xRFM is closer to the boosted-tree baselines, suggesting that its feature-learning mechanism may be more suitable for fully numerical high-dimensional regression than for large mixed-type regression.

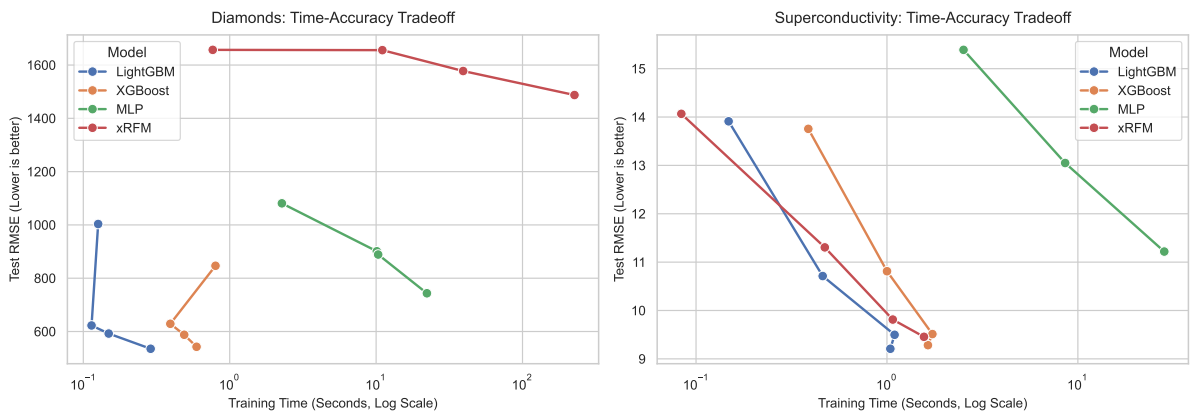

Figure 4: Training-time and predictive-performance trade-off for Diamonds and Superconductivity. Lower RMSE and lower training time indicate a better efficiency-performance trade-off.

Appendix summary. The supplementary results reinforce the main conclusions of the report. AGOP provides interpretable feature rankings that are often aligned with domain intuition, especially for numerical predictors. However, meaningful AGOP feature rankings do not guarantee superior predictive performance. The extended scalability and trade-off plots show that xRFM is competitive on Superconductivity but struggles on Diamonds, where boosted-tree methods achieve much better accuracy-efficiency trade-offs.

References

Daniel Beaglehole, David Holzmüller, Adityanarayanan Radhakrishnan, and Mikhail Belkin. xrfm: Accurate, scalable, and interpretable feature learning models for tabular data. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2508.10053*, 2025.

Tianqi Chen and Carlos Guestrin. Xgboost: A scalable tree boosting system. In *Proceedings of the 22nd ACM SIGKDD International Conference on Knowledge Discovery and Data Mining*, pages 785–794, 2016.

fedesoriano. Stroke prediction dataset, 2021. URL https://www.kaggle.com/fedesoriano/stroke-prediction-dataset.

Aaron Fisher, Cynthia Rudin, and Francesca Dominici. All models are wrong, but many are useful: Learning a variable's importance by studying an entire class of prediction models simultaneously. *Journal of Machine Learning Research*, 20(177):1–81, 2019.

Léo Grinsztajn, Edouard Oyallon, and Gael Varoquaux. Why do tree-based models still outperform deep learning on typical tabular data? In *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*, volume 35, pages 507–520, 2022.

Kam Hamidieh. A data-driven statistical model for predicting the critical temperature of a superconductor. *Computational Materials Science*, 154:346–354, 2018.

David Holzmüller, Léo Grinsztajn, and Ingo Steinwart. Better by default: Strong pre-tuned mlps and boosted trees on tabular data. In *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*, volume 37, pages 26577–26658, 2024.

Guolin Ke, Qi Meng, Thomas Finley, Taifeng Wang, Wei Chen, Weidong Ma, Qiwei Ye, and Tie-Yan Liu. Lightgbm: A highly efficient gradient boosting decision tree. In *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*, volume 30, 2017.

Alexander Kraskov, Harald Stögbauer, and Peter Grassberger. Estimating mutual information. *Physical Review E*, 69(6):066138, 2004.

Karl Pearson. On lines and planes of closest fit to systems of points in space. *The London, Edinburgh, and Dublin Philosophical Magazine and Journal of Science*, 2(11):559–572, 1901.

Adityanarayanan Radhakrishnan, Daniel Beaglehole, Parthe Pandit, and Mikhail Belkin. Mechanism for feature learning in neural networks and backpropagation-free machine learning models. *Science*, 383(6690):1461–1467, 2024.

C. Okan Sakar, S. O. Polat, Mete Katircioglu, and Yomi Kastro. Real-time prediction of online shoppers' purchasing intention using multilayer perceptron and lstm recurrent neural networks. *Neural Computing and Applications*, 31(10):6893–6908, 2019.